Paper II · Unit I · Topic 5

National Movement, Social Movements and Partition — Substantive Depth Repair

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Editorial scope. The existing chapter and its earlier Gandhi–Irwin Pact/Round Table Conference supplement remain available unchanged. This new work focuses on the syllabus gaps: the three-phase model as an analytical tool; peasants, workers, tribal resistance, women's independent agendas, socialist and communist currents, the evolution of communal representation, the Cabinet Mission, Partition, and the distinct political trajectory of Hyderabad State. Historical claims are distinguished from retrospective interpretations; no unverified death totals are asserted. The questions below are newly authored practice questions, not TGPSC previous-year questions.

1. Syllabus map and how to study the topic

The commission's Topic 5 wording names three phases of the freedom struggle (1885–1947), the rise and growth of the All India Kisan Sabha, workers' and tribal movements, gender and women's movement, socialist and communist movements, communalism, and independence and Partition. A strong mains answer must connect these strands rather than treat them as unrelated dates. Use a four-part test for every movement: the structural grievance, the organisational vehicle, its relationship to the national struggle, and the historical result or limitation. This prevents an answer from becoming a list of leaders.

The old three-phase classification is useful as a revision framework but not an explanation by itself. Moderate constitutional agitation (roughly 1885–1905), Swadeshi/assertive mobilisation (1905–1919), and mass politics after 1919 overlap. Trade-union and peasant politics did not suddenly begin in the third phase; nor did constitutional methods disappear after Gandhi. Some women demanded legal equality independently of Congress, while many cultivators judged freedom by rent, debt and land. Similarly, the princely state of Hyderabad cannot be placed under the same constitutional arrangements as a British Indian province. Each of these distinctions is examinable.

2. Phase I, 1885–1905: political representation and economic criticism

The Indian National Congress, established in 1885, helped create a recurring all-India forum, but early delegates disproportionately represented urban educated professions. Its petitions, resolutions and legislative demands should not be dismissed as mere loyalty: political representation, civil rights, service recruitment and control of finance were practical ways to challenge unaccountable imperial rule. The Indian Councils Act of 1892 expanded discussion without creating responsible government. The difference between permission to debate a budget and power to determine it is essential: formal participation can coexist with executive dominance.

The drain critique associated with Dadabhai Naoroji and R. C. Dutt turned colonial poverty into an argument about state structure. Their claim was that payments abroad and policies favouring imperial interests diverted resources that might otherwise circulate domestically. This was a political-economic diagnosis, not a single universally agreed calculation of losses. It equipped later peasants and workers with a language of structural injustice, but the early Congress did not yet provide most of them with an effective membership-based organisation. Social reform movements and local agrarian protests therefore deserve separate attention; national political awakening did not originate solely in annual Congress meetings.

3. Phase II, 1905–1919: boycott, mobilisation and its exclusions

The 1905 partition of Bengal catalysed Swadeshi and boycott campaigns. Consumers, students, traders, writers and women helped turn economic choices into visible public protest. National schools and indigenous enterprises attempted to build institutions outside colonial patronage. Yet access to Swadeshi goods depended on prices, incomes and local supply; the programme could place unequal burdens on poor consumers. Its cultural symbols could widen solidarity but also raise questions about religious inclusion. Historians therefore examine not only speeches but also which groups could participate materially.

The 1907 Surat split exposed disputes over methods and leadership, while the Home Rule Leagues of Tilak and Annie Besant in 1916 renewed constitutional mass campaigning. The Lucknow Pact of 1916 showed that Congress–League cooperation was possible, but its acceptance of communal representation created long-term dilemmas about political identity. World War I sharpened taxation, inflation and coercion. The Rowlatt Acts and the 1919 Amritsar massacre discredited imperial claims to liberal legitimacy. This phase matters as a laboratory of new repertoires—boycott, volunteer networks, publicity and local committees—later adapted on a larger scale.

4. Phase III, 1919–1947: the changing mechanics of mass politics

The non-cooperation campaign joined boycotts of colonial institutions with Khilafat mobilisation, but participants often interpreted its promise through local agrarian or religious grievances. Its suspension after Chauri Chaura in 1922 revealed the tension between central nonviolent discipline and diverse local mobilisation. The Civil Disobedience Movement beginning in 1930 made salt a shared symbol of coercive law. The already published Gandhi–Irwin supplement analyses the 1931 truce in depth; it should not be mistaken for the final constitutional settlement or a general amnesty for every political prisoner.

The Government of India Act 1935 introduced provincial autonomy within an imperial framework. Congress ministries formed after 1937 elections in several provinces, but the electorate was restricted and governors retained powers. The Second World War triggered disagreement over whether India could be committed to war without Indian consent. The All India Congress Committee adopted the Quit India resolution on 8 August 1942; a Nehru Archive edition separately preserves earlier 5 August drafts, which must not be mislabeled as the final adopted text. Mass action continued after many senior leaders were detained. Local

underground networks and parallel authorities demonstrate initiative beyond top-level leadership, but wartime repression and violence complicate simplistic descriptions of one uniform movement.

5. The Kisan Sabha: why a separate agrarian voice emerged

Agrarian politics had roots in rent disputes, indebtedness, tenancy insecurity, forced labour and the authority of zamindars and intermediaries. A cultivator might favour national freedom yet still face eviction by an Indian landlord. Provincial kisan associations developed before the All India Kisan Sabha (AIKS) was constituted at Lucknow in April 1936, with Swami Sahajanand Saraswati as its first president. The organisation's own historical conference account identifies Congress Socialists, Communists and independent agrarian organisers among the founders. As an organisational source, it is valuable evidence of how the AIKS describes its origins, but its retrospective political interpretation requires independent comparison.

The demand for land and tenant protection could bring kisan activists into conflict not only with colonial officials but also with landlords allied to nationalist parties. This explains why AIKS cannot be treated as merely a rural wing of Congress. N. G. Ranga's agrarian leadership in Andhra provides a regional bridge, but “Andhra” in such accounts should not automatically be equated with the later state of Telangana. The 1936 programme broadened the freedom struggle's social meaning: self-rule would be inadequate if cultivators remained without bargaining power over rent, debt and land.

6. Land, crop shares and the comparison with Tebhaga

The Tebhaga movement in Bengal (1946–47) challenged the division of produce between sharecroppers and landlords. Its name points to the demand that cultivators retain two-thirds rather than the prevailing half share in many arrangements. The grievance was not simply an abstract slogan about land redistribution; it concerned who bore cultivation costs, who stored grain, and whose claim could be enforced through village power. Organising women, harvest protection and collective bargaining could transform a contractual dispute into a wider political confrontation.

Contrast Tebhaga with the Telangana struggle: both involved agrarian exploitation and left-led mobilisation, but they occurred in different legal and political settings. Bengal lay within British India; Telangana was part of the princely Hyderabad State. Tebhaga's core immediate demand concerned crop shares, whereas Telangana's mobilisation involved vetti (unpaid forced labour), landlord domination, tenancy, village coercion and the Nizam's state apparatus. A comparative answer should identify these different institutions before asserting a common “peasant revolution.” Sources differ on the scale and local outcomes of both struggles, so avoid fabricated figures or a single neat endpoint.

7. Telangana's 1946–51 peasant struggle: a different state structure

The Telangana peasant uprising is commonly dated 1946–51, though its phases must be separated. It emerged from village Sanghams, agrarian grievances and Communist-led mobilisation under the Nizam's Hyderabad State. In some localities, coercive landholding practices and unpaid labour helped turn demands for dignity into organised resistance. As conflict intensified, armed confrontation, repression and competing claims to local authority became central. The Hyderabad State's integration into the Indian Union in September 1948 did not immediately end every agrarian conflict; armed struggle and political reorientation continued into 1951.

This chronology prevents two serious mistakes: treating the uprising as simply a Congress civil-disobedience campaign, and claiming it ended on 15 August 1947. The 1974 study by D. N. Dhanagare

is a named scholarly analysis of its social origins; later research also examines caste and gender limitations within egalitarian mobilisation. Villagers did not have one motive, and the Communist movement did not always resolve hierarchies within its own support base. For Telangana mains answers, distinguish the anti-feudal dimension, opposition to autocratic rule, the 1948 turning point, and unresolved questions of land, social equality and violence.

8. Industrial labour: unions, workplaces and nationalism

Industrialisation created concentrations of textile, railway, dock, mining and plantation labour. Workers faced long hours, insecure employment, wage pressure and weak channels of negotiation. The All India Trade Union Congress (AITUC) was founded in 1920, with Lala Lajpat Rai as its first president. Its creation illustrates how the labour question gained a national organisational platform without being reducible to any one party. Unions combined wage demands, recognition, strike coordination and sometimes broader anti-colonial politics.

Industrial action should be examined as an organisational process: grievances are translated into demands; leaders seek bargaining legitimacy; employers and officials respond with negotiation or repression; and workers assess the costs of a strike. Trade-union federations subsequently divided along ideological lines, so “the working class” cannot be treated as a single political actor. Ahmedabad's labour relations and Bombay's militant industrial unions, for example, embodied different approaches to negotiation and class conflict. Workers sometimes supported nationalist campaigns but could also prioritise immediate workplace survival over Congress calls. An exam answer gains depth by discussing the trade-off between collective action and lost wages rather than presenting every strike as an automatic nationalist success.

9. Labour politics in Hyderabad and the regional boundary problem

The Hyderabad State included urban industries, railways, workshops and mineral-based employment, but its political system was not that of the directly governed British provinces. The Nizam's administrative structures and local social hierarchy shaped opportunities for unionisation. The Singareni coalfield, in the Telangana region, illustrates the importance of industrial labour to a wider regional history. However, present-day company or union histories cannot automatically verify every colonial-era strike, membership count or wage claim. Those require dated registers, contemporary newspapers or archival proceedings.

For analytical comparison, ask whether workers sought wage revision, freedom of association, relief from coercive employment practices or political representation. A miner, textile worker and railway employee did not face identical risks. Workers in a princely state could confront local state restrictions alongside commercial management. This matters because the textbook phrase “Indian labour movement” can conceal sharp differences between Bombay Presidency, Madras Presidency and Hyderabad State. The national narrative is more accurate when it includes these different political jurisdictions.

10. Tribal resistance: forest rights, customary economies and armed mobilisation

Tribal movements were not merely local versions of Congress politics. Forest reservations, restrictions on shifting cultivation, interference with customary access, moneylending, policing and displacement could threaten an entire way of life. Birsa Munda's Ulgulan (1899–1900) preceded the Congress mass phase; its memory nonetheless influenced later accounts of resistance and community rights. In the Agency areas of present-day Andhra Pradesh, Alluri Sitarama Raju led the Rampa/Manyam rebellion (1922–24) against colonial rule and restrictive forest administration. The Government of India's district repository links the rebellion to restrictions on podu cultivation under forest regulation.

The Gond struggle associated with Komaram Bheem belongs to the Hyderabad State's distinct history, not to the British-administered Rampa area. Bheem's resistance is remembered in connection with forests, land and autonomy in the Adilabad region. Some slogans and precise event details are widely reproduced in commemorative accounts but require stronger contemporary documentation before being treated as verbatim historical records. A careful answer identifies the specific forest regime, local authority and community demands, and then explains how these overlapped with—but were not identical to—the all-India anti-colonial struggle.

11. Gender: participation was not the same as emancipation

Women entered the national movement through picketing, khadi work, salt-law defiance, public speaking, fundraising, underground communication, relief networks and local leadership. Sarojini Naidu, Kamaladevi Chattopadhyay, Aruna Asaf Ali, Usha Mehta and many less-recorded organisers exemplify varied roles, not a single female political experience. Class, caste, region and family resources affected who could travel, face arrest or gain a public platform. Some women's work was celebrated as sacrifice while their claims to property, education and equal representation were deferred.

The All India Women's Conference, founded in 1927, developed an independent institutional agenda in education, child marriage reform and women's legal position. Its official history records its formation, and its presidential register documents leaders across the late colonial period. These are valuable organisational records, but they do not prove that all women shared the same priorities. A historian should contrast nationalist participation with the movement for legal and social equality. Women were not simply auxiliaries: they could influence political strategy and demand a transformation of the social order that independence alone would not guarantee.

12. The women's movement and constitutional citizenship

The gender question included franchise, access to schools, age at marriage, personal law, inheritance and professional opportunities. The Child Marriage Restraint Act of 1929 (often called the Sarda Act) was a landmark of legislative reform, but legislation alone could not ensure enforcement. Campaigns for women's suffrage faced a tension between restricted property/education-based franchise and universal political equality. Women's organisations pursued both institutional lobbying and street mobilisation, sometimes with different priorities from Congress committees.

When evaluating achievements, separate formal rights from practical access. A woman could be permitted to speak in a meeting yet remain excluded from its decision-making body. Urban elite women often had greater access to English-language publications and constitutional negotiations than rural women. Conversely, rural women contributed indispensable work to peasant campaigns that left few personal written records. This creates an archival bias: a lack of named biographies is not proof of non-participation. The best answer includes women as agents with autonomous goals and evaluates how caste, religion,

occupation and education shaped their experience.

13. Congress Socialists: independence and the social order

The Congress Socialist Party (CSP) was established in 1934, with leaders including Jayaprakash Narayan and Acharya Narendra Deva. It operated within the broad Congress movement while pressing for a more explicitly socialist transformation of the economy. Socialists argued that the end of British rule would not by itself end land concentration, worker exploitation or unequal access to resources. They sought a closer relationship between national independence and social justice, and helped energise peasant and labour organisations.

The CSP was neither identical to the Communist Party nor simply a synonym for Congress. Its members disagreed about organisational discipline, methods of struggle and relations with other left groups. Socialist criticism of elite constitutionalism contributed to the radicalisation of the 1930s, but socialists still confronted practical choices: should they remain within Congress, build independent class organisations, or pursue both? A mains answer should explain this dual strategy. Its influence is best assessed in the language of agrarian reform, unionisation and anti-imperial mobilisation, not through an exaggerated claim that it alone directed the freedom struggle.

14. Communist politics: a changing wartime position

Indian Communist organisation emerged through multiple networks in the 1920s, with historical discussions distinguishing Tashkent (1920) from organisational consolidation at Kanpur (1925). A simplistic one-date origin story misses these stages. Communist activists organised workers and peasants, faced prosecution and participated in broader anti-imperial debates. Their relationships with Congress and the CSP were variable: tactical cooperation, ideological rivalry and competition for leadership could coexist.

The Second World War created a particularly difficult turning point. After Germany attacked the Soviet Union in June 1941, the Communist Party's wartime position shifted toward a “People's War” interpretation and support for the anti-fascist war effort; the party did not officially endorse the August 1942 Quit India campaign. This was politically consequential, but it is misleading to infer that every Communist sympathiser behaved identically. Local decisions and personal commitments varied. Telangana's later agrarian mobilisation cannot be understood by projecting one 1942 party directive mechanically onto every village. The historian should distinguish official party line, grassroots participation and retrospective justification.

15. Communalism: political institutions and contested identities

Communalism refers to political mobilisation that treats religious communities as fundamentally separate political interests and often assumes that their members share one political will. It is not synonymous with religious practice or every expression of community identity. Colonial census categories, separate electorates, representation rules, local competition and political leadership all shaped the terrain. The Morley–Minto reforms (1909) introduced separate electorates for Muslims; subsequent constitutional bargaining institutionalised debates over minority safeguards and political representation. The Lucknow Pact (1916) showed cooperation and communal representation could coexist.

The Lahore Resolution of 1940 became central to Muslim League claims, but the route from its language to the precise territorial Partition of 1947 was contested rather than inevitable. Congress leaders, League leaders, Sikh organisations, provincial parties and anti-caste voices differed in their understandings of security and self-government. A rigorous explanation avoids assigning collective guilt to Hindus, Muslims or Sikhs. Violence was enacted by individuals and organised groups under particular conditions; ordinary

people of every community also sheltered neighbours and resisted attacks. The political process must be analysed through institutions and decisions, not stereotypes.

16. The Cabinet Mission: why a united arrangement was attempted

The Cabinet Mission statement of 16 May 1946 proposed a union with limited central subjects and a complex structure of provincial groupings. The constitutional text is available in an indexed historical-document edition. Its attraction was the possibility of avoiding immediate Partition while recognising provincial autonomy and competing communal fears. Its weakness was the ambiguity of compulsory grouping and the question of where sovereignty ultimately lay. Congress and the Muslim League interpreted key clauses differently; the Nehru Archive's 24 May 1946 Congress resolution directly illustrates objections to compulsory grouping.

Do not say the Mission simply “granted independence” or “created Pakistan.” It was a constitutional proposal requiring political agreement. The failure to secure stable consensus, the interim-government dispute, escalating communal violence and the breakdown of trust narrowed the range of viable outcomes. Yet inevitability is a retrospective illusion: at the time, several arrangements were being discussed. Historical explanation should identify the contested clauses, each party's concerns, and the consequences of failed bargaining rather than presenting Partition as the automatic result of one religious difference.

17. Transfer of power and Partition: law versus lived experience

The 3 June 1947 plan announced the route toward Partition and rapid transfer of power. The Indian Independence Act received royal assent on 18 July 1947; its section 1 established the two Dominions from 15 August 1947. Section 7 ended British paramountcy over princely states. The latter point is vital for Hyderabad: the Act did not automatically merge the Nizam's territory into either Dominion on the appointed day. State integration was a separate political and legal process that continued after British withdrawal.

Legal independence and social security did not arrive together. Partition produced violence, displacement, loss of property and ruptured families, but precise casualty totals vary by source and methodology. No single unsupported total should appear in exam notes as uncontested fact. The Radcliffe boundary awards were announced after independence, adding uncertainty to an already compressed administrative timetable. The historian must evaluate both high-level decisions and the experience of refugees, women, children and minorities. Citizenship, rehabilitation, property claims and memory became lasting consequences. The Act created Dominions; it did not instantly resolve communal violence or the constitutional future of every princely state.

18. Hyderabad State and Telangana: why 1947 is not the regional endpoint

Hyderabad was a princely state ruled by the Nizam, not a British Indian province. The lapse of British paramountcy under section 7 of the 1947 Act altered the legal framework but did not itself create democratic rule in Hyderabad. The Hyderabad State's political future involved negotiations, popular movements, armed conflict and the Indian government's September 1948 military action, often called Operation Polo. The Telangana peasant movement overlapped with this period and continued in altered form after 1948.

An integrated Telangana answer must therefore use two chronologies: all-India transfer of power in August 1947, and Hyderabad's political transformation through 1948 and beyond. These chronologies intersect but are not interchangeable. Neither the Nizam's administration nor Telangana's peasant mobilisation should be described as if it operated under the 1935 provincial-autonomy provisions in the same manner as British provinces. The distinct institutional setting explains why questions of feudal landholding, responsible government, linguistic identity and state integration remained politically urgent after the national flag was raised in Delhi.

19. Historiographical debates and how to handle evidence

A nationalist-centred narrative stresses Congress leadership and the constitutional transfer of power. A social-history approach asks how workers, tenants, tribal communities and women shaped the struggle and why their demands were not always represented at national negotiations. A Marxist reading foregrounds class relations and imperial economic structures; a subaltern approach tests whether elite political categories adequately capture local agency. These are interpretive frameworks, not mutually exclusive collections of facts. A strong answer uses each to illuminate a specific question and identifies its blind spots.

Evidence must also be graded. A law's enacted text is authoritative for its legal provisions, not for how consistently those provisions were implemented. An organisation's own retrospective history can confirm how it narrates its founding, but is not an independent audit of every claimed success. An edited archival transcription offers access to a dated document but may omit material in the original manuscript. Scholarly secondary work supplies analysis but may disagree on causes and outcomes. Exam notes should therefore distinguish dated primary texts, institutional retrospectives and scholarly interpretation. Where full archival registers were unavailable, avoid exact claims about casualties, strike totals, land transfers or membership.

20. Applied comparative cases for mains

Case A — a tenant in Bengal, 1946: A sharecropper seeks a larger share of harvested produce. Diagnose the distribution of cultivation costs, storage control and landlord enforcement. Compare with Telangana without treating all agrarian disputes as identical. The immediate demand is crop-share reform; the wider issue is power over production.

Case B — a Telangana village under the Nizam: Villagers oppose vetti and coercive landholding. Identify the Sangham as an organisational vehicle, the princely-state jurisdiction, the role of Communist cadres, and the difference between September 1948 state integration and the later end of armed struggle.

Case C — a textile worker in 1920: A worker faces long hours and wage insecurity. Explain why trade-union federation creates bargaining capacity and how lost wages, employer resistance and factional divisions limit mobilisation. Compare labour demands with Congress constitutional claims.

Case D — a forest-dependent community: Officials restrict podu cultivation. Distinguish ecological regulation from coercive loss of customary access; connect Rampa to British-administered Agency areas and Komaram Bheem to Hyderabad's Gond region. Do not transfer dates or legal jurisdictions across movements.

Case E — a woman organiser in 1930: She pickets imported goods but also campaigns for education and legal equality. Explain the distinction between participation in nationalism and an autonomous women's-rights agenda, and identify the archival invisibility of rural women's labour.

Case F — a Hyderabad resident in August 1947: Explain why British paramountcy lapses but local political authority does not instantly become that of the Indian Union. Use section 7 of the Independence Act and the separate September 1948 turning point, while acknowledging competing political perspectives and the

human costs of conflict.

21. Exam-ready revision and error traps

Concept	Correct distinction	Common error
Three phases	Useful overlapping analytical periods	Treating each as exclusive and uniform
AIKS 1936	Independent national peasant organisation at Lucknow	Calling it simply a Congress rural department
AITUC 1920	National labour federation with Lajpat Rai as first president	Equating unions with one party
Tebhaga	Bengal sharecroppers' crop-share struggle	Calling it the same movement as Telangana
Telangana 1946–51	Princely-state agrarian struggle crossing 1948	Ending it on 15 August 1947
AIWC 1927	Women's autonomous education and rights organisation	Reducing women to Congress auxiliaries
CSP 1934	Socialist current operating within Congress	Identifying CSP and CPI as the same body
Quit India	AICC adopted resolution on 8 August 1942	Confusing the 5 August draft with adoption
Cabinet Mission	16 May 1946 proposed union/grouping framework	Claiming it legislated Partition
Independence Act	Assent 18 July; appointed day 15 August 1947	Assuming all princely states automatically merged
Hyderabad	Integration September 1948	Treating Hyderabad as a British Indian province

Self-check: Can you explain why a tenant's, worker's, tribal community's and woman activist's definitions of freedom could differ? Can you compare Congress, CSP and CPI without treating them as interchangeable? Can you use the actual language of sections 1 and 7 of the 1947 Act to explain the distinction between British India and princely states? These are the marks of an analytical answer rather than a memorised chronology.

Three original comparative diagrams

Three agrarian pathways — do not conflate

AIKS · 1936	Tebhaga · 1946–47	Telangana · 1946–51
All-India federation	Bengal sharecroppers	Vetti and landlordism
Rent and debt	Two-thirds crop share	Village Sanghams
Tenant rights	Harvest and storage	Hyderabad State
Organising platform	British India	1948 not the endpoint

Shared agrarian grievances, different demands and jurisdictions.

Constitutional choices and Hyderabad

Cabinet Mission · May 1946	Transfer · 1947	Hyderabad State
Limited union	3 June plan	Section 7: lapse
Provincial grouping	18 July Act	No automatic merger
Competing readings	15 August Dominions	September 1948
Agreement failed	Displacement / violence	Separate agrarian timeline

Legal transfer, political integration and lived security are distinct.

Political phases and parallel social mobilisation

1885–1905

- Congress forum
- Budget and services
- Drain critique
- Early local protests

1905–1919

- Swadeshi and boycott
- Home Rule
- War and repression
- Continuing labour action

1919–1947

- Gandhian mass politics
- AIKS / AITUC / AIWC
- Left movements
- Partition negotiations

Phases overlap; social movements have distinct goals and histories.

30 Original Explained Practice MCQs — Paper II Unit I Topic 5

Original practice, not official TGPSC PYQs. Each explanation states the reasoning; distractors are intentionally plausible where possible.

Q1. Why is the three-phase model of the freedom struggle a limited analytical tool?

A. It ignores all events after 1919

B. Constitutional and mass methods overlapped across periods

C. The Congress began only in 1905

D. Trade unions had no relation to nationalism

Answer: B. Political repertoires overlapped; the model helps revision but does not create sealed historical periods.

Q2. Which demand best illustrates early nationalist scrutiny of colonial institutions?

A. Complete abolition of all trade

B. Indianisation of higher services and financial accountability

C. Immediate universal adult franchise in 1885

D. Dissolution of every provincial council

Answer: B. Early Congress leaders pressed administrative representation and budget scrutiny within limited constitutional openings.

Q3. What was a major practical constraint on Swadeshi consumption?

A. All imported goods were illegal

B. Local supply and purchasing power varied

C. No traders participated

D. National schools were already universal

Answer: B. Boycott choices depended on household resources and access to substitutes.

Q4. Which agreement combined Congress–League cooperation with communal representation?

A. Poona Pact 1932

B. Lucknow Pact 1916

C. Gandhi–Irwin Pact 1931

D. Cabinet Mission 1946

Answer: B. The Lucknow Pact exemplifies cooperation alongside the acceptance of separate political representation.

Q5. Which date identifies the adopted AICC Quit India resolution?

A. 5 August 1942

B. 8 August 1942

C. 9 August 1945

D. 15 August 1947

Answer: B. The archive includes 5 August drafts, but the All India Congress Committee adopted the resolution on 8 August 1942.

Q6. Where was the All India Kisan Sabha formed in 1936?

A. Karachi

B. Lucknow

C. Bombay

D. Hyderabad

Answer: B. The AIKS was constituted at Lucknow in April 1936.

Q7. Who was the AIKS first president?

A. Lala Lajpat Rai

B. Swami Sahajanand Saraswati

C. M. N. Roy

D. Sarojini Naidu

Answer: B. Swami Sahajanand Saraswati led the initial national kisan organisation.

Q8. Why did peasant organisers sometimes criticise nationalist landlords?

A. Nationalism abolished tenancy

B. Political independence alone would not remove rent and debt burdens

C. AIKS supported only industrial workers

D. Land revenue had ceased in the 1930s

Answer: B. Agrarian exploitation could continue under Indian intermediaries despite anti-colonial solidarity.

Q9. Tebhaga is most closely associated with which demand?

A. Three-fifths of wages in Bombay mills

B. Two-thirds of crop share for Bengal cultivators

C. A separate Dominion for Hyderabad

D. Forest autonomy in the Agency areas

Answer: B. Tebhaga challenged produce-sharing arrangements for Bengal sharecroppers in 1946–47.

Q10. Which distinction between Tebhaga and Telangana is historically sound?

A. Both occurred only in Hyderabad State

B. Tebhaga focused on Bengal sharecropping; Telangana also confronted vetti and Nizam-era structures

C. Both ended on 15 August 1947

D. Neither involved agrarian power

Answer: B. Their institutional settings and immediate grievances differed despite shared agrarian themes.

Q11. What does vetti refer to in the Telangana agrarian context?

A. Free public education

B. Unpaid or coerced labour obligations

C. Voluntary cotton marketing

D. A constitutional assembly

Answer: B. Vetti denotes forms of unpaid compulsory labour opposed by village activists.

Q12. Why is 1948 a turning point but not an endpoint in Telangana agrarian history?

A. The uprising began in 1952

B. Hyderabad integration occurred in September 1948, while the agrarian struggle continued

C. The British returned in 1948

D. All land disputes ended by decree

Answer: B. Political integration and the cessation of armed peasant struggle followed different timelines.

Q13. Which labour organisation was founded in 1920?

A. AIWC

B. AITUC

C. AIKS

D. CSP

Answer: B. The All India Trade Union Congress created a national labour federation in 1920.

Q14. Who was AITUC first president?

A. Lala Lajpat Rai

B. Jawaharlal Nehru

C. N. G. Ranga

D. Annie Besant

Answer: A. Lala Lajpat Rai presided over the founding AITUC conference.

Q15. Why should labour strikes not automatically be equated with Congress campaigns?

A. Workers had no political views

B. Wage, recognition and workplace demands could differ from national constitutional priorities

C. All strikes were prohibited

D. Unions never collaborated with nationalists

Answer: B. Workplace bargaining and anti-colonial politics overlapped but were not identical.

Q16. Which rebellion was led by Alluri Sitarama Raju in 1922–24?

A. Tebhaga

B. Rampa/Manyam

C. Ulgulan

D. Khilafat

Answer: B. The Rampa/Manyam movement arose in British-administered Agency areas amid forest and colonial grievances.

Q17. What is a crucial jurisdictional distinction for Komaram Bheem?

A. He led the Bengal sharecroppers

B. His Gond-region struggle belongs to Hyderabad State, not the Rampa Agency

C. He drafted the 1947 Act

D. He founded the AIWC

Answer: B. Bheem is associated with the Hyderabad State's Adilabad/Gond context, unlike Alluri's Agency areas.

Q18. Which movement preceded the three-phase Congress mass-politics period?

A. Birsa Munda Ulgulan, 1899–1900

B. Quit India, 1942

C. Tebhaga, 1946

D. Cabinet Mission, 1946

Answer: A. Birsa Munda’s resistance predates 1919 and shows why tribal histories cannot be fitted into a Congress-only chronology.

Q19. Which organisation founded in 1927 pursued women's education and rights?

A. AIWC

B. AITUC

C. AIKS

D. Hindu College of 1817

Answer: A. The All India Women’s Conference developed its own reform and citizenship agenda.

Q20. What is the key distinction between nationalist participation and gender emancipation?

A. They are always identical

B. Women could campaign for independence while still facing unequal rights

C. Women did not participate in picketing

D. Education reform ended in 1927

Answer: B. Nationalist activism did not automatically resolve property, education or representation inequalities.

Q21. What was a central subject of the Child Marriage Restraint Act 1929?

A. Land tax remission

B. Age-related restrictions on child marriage

C. Trade union recognition

D. Separate electorates

Answer: B. The Sarda Act addressed child marriage; enforcement and social change remained separate questions.

Q22. Which group formed in 1934 within the wider Congress arena?

A. Congress Socialist Party

B. All India Kisan Sabha

C. AITUC

D. Cabinet Mission

Answer: A. The CSP was founded in 1934 and connected anti-colonial struggle to socialist economic demands.

Q23. Which pairing correctly captures two stages of Communist organisational history?

A. Tashkent 1920 and Kanpur 1925

B. Lucknow 1936 and Poona 1927

C. Bombay 1942 and Delhi 1947

D. Surat 1907 and Calcutta 1905

Answer: A. Historians distinguish early Tashkent networks from the Kanpur organisational consolidation.

Q24. What changed the CPI wartime position after June 1941?

A. Formation of the AIWC

B. Germany’s invasion of the Soviet Union and the People’s War line

C. The Indian Independence Act

D. The 1905 Bengal partition

Answer: B. The German invasion of the USSR influenced the CPI’s anti-fascist wartime strategy and its non-endorsement of Quit India.

Q25. Why is communalism not synonymous with ordinary religious practice?

A. All religious practice is political violence

B. Communalism organises political claims around supposedly uniform religious interests

C. Religious communities never entered politics

D. It began only after 1947

Answer: B. The concept concerns political representation and antagonistic group interests, not worship itself.

Q26. Which reform introduced separate electorates for Muslims?

A. Indian Councils Act 1909

B. Indian Independence Act 1947

C. Government of India Act 1858

D. Regulating Act 1773

Answer: A. The Morley–Minto reforms of 1909 institutionalised separate Muslim electorates.

Q27. What was the Cabinet Mission’s May 1946 constitutional objective?

A. To implement the final Radcliffe line

B. To propose a union/grouping framework that might avoid immediate Partition

C. To dissolve every princely state

D. To enact universal adult franchise overnight

Answer: B. The 16 May statement proposed a complex federal arrangement; disputes over grouping contributed to failure.

Q28. What did section 1 of the Indian Independence Act 1947 establish?

A. Hyderabad’s accession

B. Two independent Dominions from 15 August 1947

C. The AIKS

D. A united Cabinet Mission federation

Answer: B. The enacted statute set the appointed day for India and Pakistan as 15 August 1947.

Q29. Why is section 7 of the Indian Independence Act important for Hyderabad?

A. It automatically merged Hyderabad into India

B. It ended British paramountcy over princely states without automatically integrating them

C. It created the Singareni mines

D. It abolished all private land immediately

Answer: B. Lapse of paramountcy and subsequent political integration were legally distinct processes.

Q30. Which is the best way to use disputed Partition casualty figures in an exam answer?

A. Present the highest number as certified

B. Distinguish uncertainty and avoid an unsupported exact total

C. Omit violence entirely

D. Attribute all deaths to one religious community

Answer: B. Historical estimates vary by method and source; careful analysis acknowledges uncertainty and avoids collective blame.

Six Complete Structured Mains Model Answers — Original Practice

Not official PYQs. Target length: 200–250 words per answer, excluding question title.

Question 1: Evaluate the three-phase model of the Indian freedom struggle and explain why social movements require a broader framework.

Answer blueprint: Introduction → analytical headings → regional or institutional comparison → limitations → conclusion.

Introduction. The conventional division into moderate politics (1885–1905), Swadeshi/assertive nationalism (1905–1919), and mass mobilisation (1919–1947) is a useful teaching framework, but its boundaries are porous.

Political evolution. Early Congress demands for financial scrutiny, civil rights and representation established a common political language. Swadeshi introduced boycott, national education and more assertive public participation. Gandhian campaigns extended mobilisation through non-cooperation, salt-law defiance and Quit India. Constitutional negotiation nevertheless continued throughout, and local participation was uneven.

Social dimensions. Peasants judged freedom through rent, debt and tenancy; workers through wages and union recognition; forest communities through access and autonomy. The All India Kisan Sabha, established in 1936, and the All India Trade Union Congress, established in 1920, show that independent organisations developed alongside Congress. Women contributed to nationalist campaigns while seeking education, franchise and legal equality through organisations such as the All India Women's Conference.

Regional qualification. Hyderabad was a princely state rather than a British province. Telangana's agrarian struggle crossed the 1947 transfer of power and continued after September 1948 integration.

Conclusion. The three phases should organise chronology, not erase overlapping methods, distinct institutions or unequal social experiences. A strong history of freedom combines national political change with the agency of peasants, workers, tribal communities and women.

Question 2: Compare the All India Kisan Sabha, Tebhaga movement and Telangana peasant struggle in their causes and political contexts.

Answer blueprint: Introduction → analytical headings → regional or institutional comparison → limitations → conclusion.

Introduction. Agrarian mobilisation linked independence with control over land, rent, labour and harvest, but its organisational forms and political jurisdictions differed.

All India Kisan Sabha. Formed at Lucknow in April 1936, the AIKS provided a national platform for peasant demands. Swami Sahajanand Saraswati became its first president. Congress Socialists, Communists and independent organisers cooperated, although the movement could challenge landlords aligned with nationalist parties. Political freedom alone could not guarantee secure tenancy or relief from indebtedness.

Tebhaga. In Bengal during 1946–47, sharecroppers demanded a larger share of produce, commonly described as two-thirds. Crop storage, cultivation costs and landlord power shaped the conflict. The immediate issue was a harvest-sharing arrangement within British India's agrarian structure.

Telangana. In Hyderabad State, village Sanghams confronted vetti, coercive landlord relations and Nizam-era authority. Communist-led mobilisation escalated into armed conflict. September 1948 integration altered the political context but did not instantly end the struggle, generally dated through 1951.

Comparison. All three reflected unequal rural power, yet AIKS was a federation, Tebhaga a crop-share movement, and Telangana a broader agrarian and political uprising in a princely state. Their outcomes cannot be measured by one universal indicator.

Conclusion. Accurate comparison specifies demands, leadership, legal jurisdiction and chronology before drawing parallels about class mobilisation.

Question 3: Discuss the contribution of workers and tribal movements to the freedom struggle, with regional examples.

Answer blueprint: Introduction → analytical headings → regional or institutional comparison → limitations → conclusion.

Introduction. Workers and tribal communities enlarged the social meaning of anti-colonial resistance by linking political freedom to economic security and customary rights.

Workers' organisation. The All India Trade Union Congress was founded in 1920 with Lala Lajpat Rai as first president. Industrial workers mobilised around wages, hours, recognition and workplace discipline. Strikes could intersect with nationalist boycotts, but lost wages and employer repression created distinct strategic costs. Ahmedabad and Bombay demonstrate that labour relations varied across industries and political traditions.

Tribal grievances. Forest restrictions, limits on shifting cultivation, policing, indebtedness and interference with customary institutions motivated resistance. Birsa Munda's Ulgulan (1899–1900) preceded Gandhian mass politics. Alluri Sitarama Raju led the Rampa rebellion (1922–24) in British-administered Agency areas, where forest regulation threatened podu cultivation.

Telangana qualification. Komaram Bheem is associated with the Gond region of Hyderabad State, a different political jurisdiction from the Rampa Agency. Industrial labour in Hyderabad and the Singareni region likewise operated within princely-state institutions rather than ordinary British provincial arrangements.

Limits. Not every strike was a Congress campaign, and not every tribal demand used nationalist language. Retrospective heroic accounts require corroboration from contemporary records.

Conclusion. These movements exposed economic and ecological dimensions of colonial and princely authority, while demonstrating that freedom had different meanings for different communities.

Question 4: Analyse women's participation in the national movement and the limits of political emancipation before 1947.

Answer blueprint: Introduction → analytical headings → regional or institutional comparison → limitations → conclusion.

Introduction. Women transformed the public repertoire of nationalism, but participation in anti-colonial action did not automatically secure equality within families, organisations or law.

Forms of participation. Women joined picketing, khadi production, salt-law defiance, fundraising, political communication and underground work. Sarojini Naidu, Kamaladevi Chattopadhyay, Aruna Asaf Ali and Usha Mehta illustrate diverse roles. Many rural organisers remain unnamed in conventional archives, creating a bias toward educated urban leaders.

Independent organisation. The All India Women's Conference, founded in 1927, pursued education and social reform beyond immediate Congress campaigns. Campaigns addressed child marriage, franchise, access to professional opportunities and legal rights. The Child Marriage Restraint Act of 1929 represented legislative intervention, although enforcement and social acceptance were separate problems.

Contradictions. Nationalist organisations often celebrated women's sacrifice without granting equal control over decisions. Class, caste, religion and region affected access to public space and political leadership. Women's rights campaigns also differed over priorities, including constitutional representation and personal-law reform.

Historical assessment. Women's activism should be assessed both as a contribution to national mobilisation and as a movement for autonomous citizenship. Counting prominent leaders alone misses local organisers and the labour sustaining protest networks.

Conclusion. Independence widened possibilities, but gender justice required institutional change beyond the transfer of sovereignty. An adequate answer recognises women's agency without assuming that nationalist inclusion completed emancipation.

Question 5: Explain the role of socialist and communist currents in the freedom struggle and the significance of their wartime differences.

Answer blueprint: Introduction → analytical headings → regional or institutional comparison → limitations → conclusion.

Introduction. Socialist and communist currents linked national liberation to land, labour and social inequality, but differed in organisation and wartime strategy.

Congress Socialists. The Congress Socialist Party, established in 1934, included Jayaprakash Narayan and Acharya Narendra Deva. Operating within Congress, it advocated socialist transformation and strengthened links with peasants and workers. Its dual position encouraged mobilisation while raising questions about autonomy from Congress leadership.

Communist networks. Communist organisational history includes Tashkent-linked activity in 1920 and consolidation at Kanpur in 1925. Activists worked in unions and kisan associations, encountered repression and debated relations with the nationalist mainstream. Communist and socialist labels should not be used interchangeably.

War and Quit India. Germany's invasion of the Soviet Union in June 1941 reshaped the Communist Party's view of the world war. Its People's War line supported the anti-fascist war effort, and the party did not officially endorse the August 1942 Quit India campaign. This did not determine the actions of every individual sympathiser or erase its agrarian organising.

Telangana. Communist-led village mobilisation in Hyderabad State later confronted vetti and landlord power, with armed struggle extending across the 1948 political transition.

Conclusion. Left currents expanded the social programme of freedom, but internal differences and wartime choices must be analysed rather than concealed under a single nationalist narrative.

Question 6: Why did constitutional bargaining fail to prevent Partition, and how did the 1947 Act affect Hyderabad State?

Answer blueprint: Introduction → analytical headings → regional or institutional comparison → limitations → conclusion.

Introduction. Partition followed failed constitutional bargaining, competing political claims and escalating violence; it was not a mechanically predetermined result of religious difference.

Communal representation. Separate Muslim electorates under the 1909 reforms institutionalised group representation. The 1916 Lucknow Pact combined Congress–League cooperation with communal safeguards. By the 1940s, disagreements over sovereignty, security and territorial claims deepened amid changing political conditions.

Cabinet Mission. The statement of 16 May 1946 proposed a limited union and provincial groupings to avoid immediate division. Congress and the Muslim League differed over compulsory grouping and the locus of authority. Congress's 24 May resolution records objections to provisions it considered inconsistent with provincial choice. Subsequent mistrust and violence narrowed compromise.

Legal transfer. The 3 June 1947 plan preceded the Indian Independence Act, assented to on 18 July. Section 1 created two Dominions from 15 August 1947. Section 7 ended British paramountcy over princely states; it did not automatically integrate Hyderabad into India.

Regional consequence. Hyderabad's Nizam remained central to a separate political crisis. Integration followed in September 1948, while Telangana's agrarian conflict continued in altered form.

Human cost. Displacement, killings and lost property require careful, non-sectarian treatment; exact casualty estimates remain contested.

Conclusion. Constitutional failure, accelerated administration and communal conflict must be analysed together, while Hyderabad's distinct legal status prevents a misleading all-India uniform chronology.

Dated Source and Evidence Audit — 26 October 2026

Scope: Source classification is explicit. URLs support verification; student notes do not cite source page numbers. Retrieval of a catalogue or abstract is not equivalent to examination of a complete original manuscript.

E01 — 8 August 1942: Quit India resolution, adopted version within Nehru Archive edited document

- Source type: edited primary-text transcription
- Locator: https://nehruarchive.in/documents/quit-india-resolution-5-august-1942-ljynq
- What it supports / limitation: Archive page also contains 5 August drafts; distinguish them from the final AICC adoption.

E02 — 8 August 1942: States People and Quit India resolution

- Source type: edited primary-text transcription
- Locator: https://nehruarchive.in/documents/the-states-people-and-the-quit-india-resolution-8-august-1942-5qx6p
- What it supports / limitation: Evidence that princely-state activists discussed their distinct relationship to the national struggle.

E03 — April 1936: AIKS retrospective founding account

- Source type: organisation retrospective, partisan institutional source
- Locator: https://kisansabha.org/aiks/resources/conference-documents/twenty-second-national-conference-of-the-all-india-kisan-sabha/
- What it supports / limitation: Confirms its own account of the Lucknow founding; not a neutral audit of all claimed achievements.

E04 — 1927: All India Women’s Conference history

- Source type: organisation retrospective
- Locator: https://www.aiwc.org.in/history.html
- What it supports / limitation: Formation and institutional purpose; wording on the registration law contains a possible historical typo and should not be copied blindly.

E05 — 1927–47: AIWC presidents register

- Source type: institutional retrospective roster
- Locator: https://www.aiwc.org.in/past_president.html
- What it supports / limitation: Corroborates changing leadership; does not establish representativeness of all women.

E06 — 1922–24: Alluri Sitarama Raju, Rampa rebellion

- Source type: government commemorative secondary summary
- Locator: https://amritmahotsav.nic.in/district-reopsitory-detail.htm?16=
- What it supports / limitation: Forest/podu context; original colonial agency records not examined.

E07 — 1946–51: Social origins of peasant insurrection in Telangana, D. N. Dhanagare (1974)

- Source type: peer-reviewed historical secondary study
- Locator: https://journals.sagepub.com/doi/10.1177/006996677400800107
- What it supports / limitation: Scholarly interpretation; full paper restricted; no quantitative claims derived from inaccessible text.

E08 — 1946–51: Patrick Hesse (2014), Telangana and limits of egalitarian reform

- Source type: scholarly secondary abstract
- Locator: https://www.bundesstiftung-aufarbeitung.de/de/publikationen/jahrbuch-fuer-historische-kommunismusforschung-2014/patrick-hesse
- What it supports / limitation: Discusses caste/gender contradictions; full text not retrieved.

E09 — 16 May 1946: Cabinet Mission statement

- Source type: historical document transcription
- Locator: https://www.constitutionofindia.net/historical-constitution/cabinet-mission-plan-cabinet-mission-1946/
- What it supports / limitation: Proposed union and provincial grouping; distinguish proposal from enacted law.

E10 — 24 May 1946: Congress resolution on Cabinet Mission statement

- Source type: edited primary-text transcription
- Locator: https://nehruarchive.in/documents/congress-resolution-on-the-cabinet-mission-statement-24-may-1946-lp7o7
- What it supports / limitation: Congress concern about compulsory grouping and sovereignty; one party's perspective.

E11 — 18 July 1947: Indian Independence Act 1947, enacted text

- Source type: original statute
- Locator: https://www.legislation.gov.uk/ukpga/Geo6/10-11/30/enacted
- What it supports / limitation: Section 1 creates Dominions on 15 August; section 7 ends paramountcy.

E12 — 15 August 1947: Constituent Assembly debate

- Source type: historical debate transcription
- Locator: https://www.constitutionofindia.net/debates/15-aug-1947/
- What it supports / limitation: Transfer-of-power testimony; a contemporaneous political perspective.

E13 — May 1934: Congress Socialist Party origins in Nandini Gooptu, Cambridge chapter

- Source type: academic secondary study
- Locator: https://www.cambridge.org/core/books/abs/politics-of-the-urban-poor-in-early-twentiethcentury-india/congress-socialist-mobilisation/576319BF56ABEE405E94C67C30AAB6A0
- What it supports / limitation: CSP founding and political aims; full book chapter may be access-restricted.

E14 — 1920: AITUC founding historical account

- Source type: secondary labour-history summary
- Locator: https://www.gktoday.in/formation-of-all-india-trade-union-congress/

- What it supports / limitation: Founding year/president cross-check; original 1920 conference minutes not obtained.

Material still missing

Original 1920 AITUC proceedings, complete 1936 AIKS conference minutes, Hyderabad State police and revenue files, comprehensive Sangham membership registers, contemporary reports of Komaram Bheem's struggle, full original Cabinet Mission correspondence, authenticated Radcliffe boundary working papers, and certified Partition casualty registers were not retrieved. Exact casualty totals, strike totals, land redistribution figures and unverified slogans are therefore deliberately omitted.

Review status

The historical narrative is a research draft with named sources, not an independent expert-certified textbook. All 75 topic approvals remain zero. A qualified historian must check source-specific claims, contradictory historiography and the complete original texts before approval.